

5 hours on examples

Problem 1 (11JMO1)

We claim that $n = 1$ is the only answer. We have $2 + 12 + 2011 = 2025 = 45^2$.

Clearly, $n = 0$ fails. FTSOC, let there be greater n .

Claim: n is even.

Taking mod 4 for $n \geq 2$,

$$2^n + 12^n + 2011^n \equiv 2011^n \equiv 3^n \pmod{4}$$

Clearly, $n \equiv 0 \pmod{2}$ since otherwise $3^n \equiv 3 \pmod{4}$ is not a quadratic residue.

Claim: n is odd.

Taking mod 3,

$$2^n + 12^n + 2011^n \equiv 2^n + 1^n \pmod{3}$$

Clearly, $n \equiv 1 \pmod{2}$ since otherwise $2^n + 1^n \equiv 2 \pmod{3}$ is not a quadratic residue.

The two contradict and we are done.

Problem 3 (87AMO1)

We have the solutions, $(m, n) = (-1, -1), (8, -10), (9, -6), (9, -21)$ or $n = 0$. These all clearly work.

Expanding,

$$\begin{aligned} m^3 + m^2n^2 + mn + n^3 &= m^3 - 3m^2n + 3mn^2 - n^3 \\ \Leftrightarrow m^2(n^2 + 3n) + m(n - 3n^2) + 2n^3 &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

If $n = 0$, m can clearly be anything looking at original equation. Otherwise,

$$\begin{aligned} m^2n + 3m^2 + m - 3mn + 2n^2 &= 0 \\ \Leftrightarrow 2n^2 + (m^2 - 3m)n + (3m^2 + m) &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

We look at the discriminant, which would be,

$$\begin{aligned} (m^2 - 3m)^2 - 4(2)(3m^2 + m) \\ = m(m^3 - 6m^2 - 15m - 8) \\ = m(m + 1)^2(m - 8) \end{aligned}$$

Since this must be a perfect square, either $m = -1$, which gives $n = -1$, or,

$$m(m - 8) = (m - 4)^2 - 16$$

Is a perfect square. For $|m - 4| > 5$ this would be between $(m - 4)^2$ and $(m - 3)^2$. For $|m - 4| < 4$ this would be negative. Therefore, we have $m = -1, 0, 8, 9$. Plugging this in, we get $(-1, -1), (0, 0), (8, -10), (9, -6), (9, -21)$ as desired.

Clearly, if $n > 0$, then the quantity inside the radical is negative.

4;6

Problem 5 (Pixton)

Sketch: Take mod 7 to get $y \geq 7$ fails. Then check $y = 4$ only solution.

Problem 6 (19USEMO4)

We plug in $n = p(p - 1)(p^{1434} - 2020)$. Note that, since $k^{n-k} \equiv (k + p(p - 1))^{n-(k+p(p-1))} \pmod{p}$,

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{i=1}^n i^{n+1-i} &\equiv (p^{1434} - 2020) \sum_{i=1}^{p(p-1)} i^{p(p-1)+1-i} \\
 &\equiv (-2020) \left(\sum_{i=1}^p i^0 + i^1 + i^2 + \dots + i^{p-2} \right) \\
 &\equiv (-2020) \left(\sum_{i=1}^{p-1} i^0 + i^1 + i^2 + \dots + i^{p-2} \right) \\
 &\equiv (-2020) \left(\sum_{i=1}^{p-1} \left(i^0 + \frac{i^{p-1} - 1}{i - 1} \right) \right) \\
 &\equiv (-2020) \left(\sum_{i=1}^{p-1} i^0 \right) \\
 &\equiv 2020
 \end{aligned}$$

9;6.5

Problem 8 (07BRA2)

Claim: A number $0 \leq x < 2^k$ is an odd quadratic residue mod 2^k if and only if $x \equiv 1 \pmod{8}$ for all positive $k \geq 3$.

We prove a stronger conclusion that, for any k , $\{1^2, 3^2, \dots, (2^{k-2} - 1)^2\} \equiv \{1, 9, 17, \dots, 2^k - 7\} \pmod{2^k}$ by induction.

Base case: $k = 3$.

$$\{1^2\} \equiv \{1\} \pmod{2^3}$$

Inductive step: $k = m \Rightarrow k = m + 1$

First, note that, for any odd i ,

$$(2^{m-1} - i)^2 \equiv i^2 - 2^m i + 2^{2(m-1)} \equiv i^2 - 2^m i \not\equiv i^2 \pmod{2^{m+1}}$$

By the inductive hypothesis,

$$\{1^2, 3^2, \dots, (2^{m-2} - 1)^2\} \equiv \{1, 9, 17, \dots, 2^m - 7\} \pmod{2^m}$$

Using our fact,

$$\{(2^{m-2} + 1)^2, (2^{m-2} + 3)^2, \dots, (2^{m-1} - 1)^2\} \equiv \{1, 9, 17, \dots, 2^m - 7\} \pmod{2^m}$$

However, $i^2 \not\equiv (2^{m-1} - i)^2$ and obviously i^2 won't have the same residue as any other squares. Therefore, by Pigeonhole, every residue that is 1 mod 8 will be covered. [citation needed?]

$$\{1^2, 3^2, \dots, (2^{m-1} - 1)^2\} \equiv \{1, 9, 17, \dots, 2^{m+1} - 7\} \pmod{2^{m+1}}$$

Conclusion: By induction we're done.

Now casework on $v_2(c)$. We must have $v_2(x) = \frac{v_2(c)}{2}$ then plug in $X = \frac{x}{v_2(x)}$ to get $X \equiv 1 \pmod{8}$. Since 2007 is small this should be fast.

Problem 10 (Z65C2983)

We claim that all $n \equiv 1, 3 \pmod{8}$ work.

Claim: $3^m \equiv n \pmod{2^k}$ for any $k \geq 3$ has a solution for m if and only if $n \equiv 1, 3 \pmod{8}$.

The only if is trivial since $3^m \equiv 1, 3 \pmod{8}$. For the if, we may prove that $v_{2^k}(3) = 2^{k-2}$ and use Pigeonhole.

Sketch of proof: Same induction process as above.

Base case for $n = 3$ is easy.

Use Euler's totient to get $v_{2^k}(3) \mid 2^{k-1}$. However, use inductive hypothesis to get $3^m \pmod{2^k}$ does not repeat for $m \leq 2^{k-2}$ since $\pmod{2^{k-1}}$. Additionally, if $3^{2^{k-2}} \equiv 1 \pmod{2^k}$, use LTE to get this is impossible.

The claim immediately gives answer since if $n \not\equiv 1, 3 \pmod{8}$ we cannot have $3^m - n \equiv 0 \pmod{2^k}$ for any $k \geq 3$. If $n \equiv 1, 3 \pmod{8}$ we can always get it.

Problem 12 (98SLN5)

We claim the answer is all $n = 2^k$ for some non-negative integer k .

We first show there is a construction for such n . Equivalently, we show that there exists a positive m such that,

$$m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^k} - 1}$$

The case for $k = 0$ is trivial. For other k , note that,

$$\gcd(2^{2^{k-1}} - 1, 2^{2^{k-1}} + 1) = \gcd(2, 2^{2^{k-1}} - 1) = 1$$

Therefore,

$$\Leftrightarrow m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^{k-1}} - 1}; m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^{k-1}} + 1}$$

Inducting, we show that there exists a m satisfying,

$$m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^{k-1}} + 1} \Leftarrow m \equiv -3 \cdot 2^{2^{k-2}} \pmod{2^{2^{k-1}} + 1};$$

$$m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^{k-2}} + 1} \Leftarrow m \equiv -3 \cdot 2^{2^{k-3}} \pmod{2^{2^{k-2}} + 1};$$

...

$$m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{2^0} + 1} \Leftarrow m \equiv -3 \pmod{2^1 + 1}$$

By the Chinese remainder theorem, since all the mod bases are relatively prime with each other, we may select such a m .

We now show all other n fail.

Claim: All odd $n > 1$ fail.

We want,

$$2^n - 1 \mid m^2 + 9$$

Note that $2^n - 1 \not\equiv 0 \pmod{3}$ but $2^n - 1 \equiv 3 \pmod{4}$ so there's an odd prime other than 3 dividing $2^n - 1$ and hence dividing $m^2 + 3^2$. By Fermat's Christmas Theorem impossible.

With the claim proven, we may just notice, if $n \neq 2^k$ for some k , we must have, whenever n is even.

$$m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{\frac{n}{2}} - 1}; m^2 \equiv -9 \pmod{2^{\frac{n}{2}} + 1}$$

Do this repeatedly to the left congruence until the exponent is an odd number greater than one.

Problem 14 (05SLN4)

We claim that the solution is all prime n .

Proof they work:

For greater n , we have this is true if and only if, for all primes p , where k is $v_p(n!)$,

$$\begin{aligned} a^n &\equiv -1 \pmod{p^k} \\ \Rightarrow a^{2n} &\equiv 1 \pmod{p^k} \end{aligned}$$

If $p^k = 2$, then $a \equiv -1 \pmod{p^k}$ is the only solution. Note that $\text{ord}_{p^k}(a) \mid 2n, \phi(p^k)$. For all other p^k , since n a prime greater than or equal to p^k ,

$$\gcd(2n, \phi(p^k)) = \gcd(2n, p^k - p^{k-1}) = \gcd(2, p^k - p^{k-1}) = 2$$

Therefore, $\text{ord}_{p^k}(a) \mid 2$. We have $a \equiv \pm 1 \pmod{p^k}$ but positive clearly does not work. Therefore, we always have,

$$a \equiv -1 \pmod{p^k}$$

By the Chinese Remainder Theorem, there is exactly one solution, which is $a \equiv -1 \pmod{n!}$ so $a = n! - 1$.

Proof that all others fail:

For even $n > 2$, note that there are no solutions. We write $n = 2k$.

$$n! \mid a^n + 1 \Rightarrow 3 \mid (a^k)^2 + 1^2$$

By Fermat's Christmas Theorem this is impossible.

For odd n , note that $a = n! - 1$ is still a solution. We claim that $a = (n-1)! - 1$ is also a solution. For any $p^k \parallel n$,

$$\begin{aligned} ((n-1)! - 1)^n + 1 &\equiv 0 \pmod{p^k} \\ \Leftrightarrow v_p(((n-1)! - 1)^n + 1) &\geq k \\ \Leftrightarrow v_p(((n-1)! - 1)^n + 1^n) &\geq k \end{aligned}$$

Note that $(n-1)! - 1 + 1 = (n-1)! \mid p$ since n is composite. Therefore, since n is odd, we may apply lifting the exponent to get,

$$\begin{aligned} \Leftrightarrow v_p((n-1)!) + v_p(n) &\geq k \\ \Leftrightarrow v_p(n!) &\geq k \end{aligned}$$

By the definition of $p^k \parallel n!$, this is true.

Problem 15 (07SLN5)

We claim that $f(x) = x$ is the answer, which clearly works.

Note that $f(2)$ shares prime divisors with $f(1) + f(1) = 2$, so $f(2) = 2^k$ for some k . Inducting, f of all powers of two outputs a power of two.

Since $f(4)$ shares divisors with $f(1) + f(3) = f(3) + 1$, $f(3) + 1$ is a power of two, so, for some x, y, z ,

$$f(1) = 1; f(2) = 2^x; f(3) = 2^y - 1; f(4) = 2^z$$

Therefore, $2^x + 1$ shares prime divisors with $2^y - 1$.

For $y = 2x$, we'd get $2^x + 1 \mid 2^y - 1$, $2^x - 1 \mid 2^y - 1$. The only way this is possible is if $2^x - 1 = 1$ and $x = 1, y = 2$.

By Zsigmondy, in every other case, there exists a prime $p \mid 2^{2x} - 1$ but p does not divide $2^y - 1$ or vice versa. In the exception case where $x = 3$, we have $y = 2$ but then $f(2) = 8$ and $f(3) = 3$ which leads contradiction looking at $f(4)$.

Therefore,

$$f(1) = 1; f(2) = 2; f(3) = 3$$

Lemma: If $2^x - 1$ and $2^y - 1$ shares prime divisors, $x = y$. For $2^x + 1$ and $2^y + 1$, $x = y$ or $(x, y) = (1, 3)$ or $(3, 1)$.

Proof: This is Zsigmondy. Exceptions such as $x = 6$ in first case trivially resolve.

Since $f(5)$ shares prime divisors with both $f(2) + f(3) = 2^2 + 1$ and $f(1) + f(4) = 2^k + 1$ for some k where $f(4) = 2^k$. Once again, by lemma, $k = 2$.

We claim that $f(x) = x$ for $2^e < n \leq 2^{e+1}$ using induction on e , which finishes.

Base case: Done.

Inductive step:

We have $f(x) = x$ for all $x \leq 2^e$.

We first prove that $f(2^{e+1} - 1) = 2^{e+1} - 1$. We already have that $f(2^{e+1} - 1) = 2^k - 1$ for some k . However, $f(2^{e+1} - 1)$ shares divisors with $f(2^e - 1) + f(2^e) = 2^{e+1} - 1$. Using the lemma, we are done.

We next prove that $f(2^{e+1}) = 2^{e+1}$. Similar as before, let $f(2^{e+1}) = 2^k$ and look at $f(2^{e+1} + 1)$ to get $k = e + 1$.

We now finally prove the rest, that $f(x) = x$ for $2^e + 1 \leq x \leq 2^{e+1} - 2$. We have,

$f(x) + f(2^{e+1} - x) = f(x) + 2^{e+1} - x$ shares prime divisors with 2^{e+1} , or 2. Therefore, for some k ,

$$f(x) + 2^{e+1} - x = 2^k$$

Similarly, $f(x) + f(2^{e+1} - x - 1) = f(x) + 2^{e+1} - x - 1 = 2^k - 1$ shares prime divisors with $2^{e+1} - 1$. Therefore, $k = e + 1$, $f(x) = x$ as desired.

36;12.5

Problem 19 (90IMO3)

We claim that $n = 1, 3$ is the only solution, which works. Consider $n > 1$.

Clearly, even n fail since $2^n + 1$ is odd.

Claim: $3 \mid n$

Consider the smallest prime p dividing n .

$$\begin{aligned} 2^n &\equiv -1 \pmod{p} \\ \Rightarrow 2^{2n} &\equiv 1 \pmod{p} \end{aligned}$$

Therefore, $\text{ord}_p(2) = \gcd(p-1, 2n)$. Since p is the smallest prime, $\gcd(p-1, n) = 1$. On the other hand, since p is odd, $p-1$ is even. Therefore,

$$\text{ord}_p(2) = 2$$

We hence have,

$$2^2 \equiv 1 \pmod{p}$$

Clearly, $p = 3 \mid n$.

Claim: $v_3(n) = 1$

Since n is odd, we may use LTE to get,

$$\begin{aligned} v_3(n^2) &\leq v_3(2^n + 1) \\ \Leftrightarrow 2v_3(n) &\leq v_3(3) + v_3(n) \\ \Leftrightarrow v_3(n) &\leq 1 \end{aligned}$$

Since $3 \mid n$ we are done.

Now consider $n > 3$. There must be a p' the second smallest prime dividing n since 2 cannot divide n and 9 cannot divide n . We similarly have,

$$\begin{aligned} 2^{2n} &\equiv 1 \pmod{p'} \\ \Rightarrow \text{ord}_{p'}(2) &= \gcd(p-1, 2n) \end{aligned}$$

We must have $3 \mid p-1$ for if otherwise the gcd is 2 and we have $p' = 3$ as before. In this case,

$$\gcd(p-1, 2n) = 6$$

Therefore,

$$2^6 = 64 \equiv 1 \pmod{p'}$$

Clearly, since $p' \neq 3$, we have $p' = 7$. However, $2^n \equiv 1, 2, 4 \pmod{7}$ so $7 \mid 2^n + 1$ is impossible.

Problem 20 (00IMO5)

I cannot find another identical solution on AoPS so idk if this works.

We claim that this is possible. We give a constructive proof using induction on the number of distinct prime divisors. In the induction, we prove that, for any integer x , we may find an integer n_x such that,

$$n_x \mid 2^{n_x} + 1$$

Additionally, we require that, also, for $x > 1$, $n_x \mid 2^{n_{x-1}} + 1$.

Base cases:

$x = 1$, we can have $n_1 = 9$.

$x = 2$, we can have $n_2 = 9 \cdot 19$, which works since we can check,

$$n_2 \mid 2^{n_1} + 1 \mid 2^{n_2} + 1$$

Inductive Step:

Given,

$$n_{x-1} \mid 2^{n_{x-1}} + 1$$

We claim that it is possible to find an odd prime $p \nmid n_{x-1}$ such that, also,

$$p \mid 2^{n_{x-1}} + 1$$

Using the inductive hypothesis, $n_{x-1} \mid 2^{n_{x-2}} + 1$, so by Zsigmondy, there must exist this new prime. We then have,

$$pn_{x-1} \mid 2^{n_{x-1}} + 1 \mid 2^{pn_{x-1}} + 1$$

We can have $n_x = pn_{x-1}$.

Conclusion: By induction we have $x = 2000$ works also.

44;15

Problem 21 (18TSTST8)

We claim that the only solutions are $b \neq 2^k - 1$ for some k .

Proving this works:

We construct infinite solutions, which are, for some primes $p_1, p_2, \dots$, we may have,

$$n = p_1, p_1 p_2, p_1 p_2 p_3, \dots$$

We use induction to prove that we may find such a sequence of primes which satisfy for any m ,

$$p_1^2 \dots p_m^2 \mid b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_m} + 1$$

Also, we require that, $p_1^2 \dots p_{m-1}^2 p_m \mid b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-1}} + 1$.

Base case: $m = 1$

Let p_1 be any prime $p_1 \mid b + 1$. Using LTE, we have,

$$p_1^2 \mid b^{p_1} + 1$$

We consider $p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-1} = 1$ for $m = 1$, we defined $p_1 \mid b + 1$ so the second condition is met.

Inductive step:

Given,

$$p_1^2 p_2^2 \dots p_{m-2}^2 p_{m-1} \mid b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-2}} + 1$$

By Zsigmondy, there exists a new prime p_m dividing $b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-1}} + 1$. Therefore,

$$p_1^2 p_2^2 \dots p_{m-2}^2 p_{m-1}^2 p_m \mid b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-1}} + 1$$

By lifting the exponent,

$$p_1^2 p_2^2 \dots p_{m-2}^2 p_{m-1}^2 p_m^2 \mid b^{p_1 p_2 \dots p_{m-1} p_m} + 1$$

Proving $b = 2^k - 1$ fails:

Consider $n > 1$,

Let p be the smallest prime dividing $b^n + 1$,

$$b^n \equiv -1 \pmod{p}$$

$$\Leftrightarrow b^{2n} \equiv 1 \pmod{p}$$

Using orders,

$$b^2 \equiv 1 \pmod{p}$$

$$p \mid (b - 1)(b + 1)$$

However, $b + 1 = 2^k$, so $p \mid b + 1$ is impossible. Therefore,

$$p \mid b - 1$$

We hence have,

$$b^n + 1 \equiv 2 \pmod{p}$$

But $p \neq 2$ so this impossible.

Problem 23 (19IMO4)

The solutions are $(n, k) = (1, 1), (2, 3)$.

Plugging in $n = 1, 2, 3, 4$, we respectively get $k = 1, 3$, impossible, impossible.

Claim: $k > \frac{n(n-1)}{2}$.

Taking v_2 ,

$$\begin{aligned} k > v_2(k!) &= v_2(2^n - 1) + v_2(2^n - 2) + \cdots + v_2(2^n - 2^{n-1}) \\ &\Rightarrow k > \frac{n(n-1)}{2} \end{aligned}$$

Claim: $k < 2n$ for $n > 4$

Taking v_3 ,

$$\begin{aligned} v_3(k!) &= v_3(2^n - 1) + v_3(2^n - 2) + \cdots + v_3(2^n - 2^{n-1}) \\ \Leftrightarrow v_3(k!) &= v_3(2^n - 1) + v_3(2^{n-1} - 1) + \cdots + v_3(2^1 - 1) \end{aligned}$$

Note that $2^n \equiv 1 \pmod{3}$ if and only if n is even.

$$\Leftrightarrow v_3(k!) = v_3\left(4^{\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor} - 1\right) + v_3\left(4^{\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor - 1} - 1\right) + \cdots + v_3(4^1 - 1)$$

Using lifting the exponent,

$$\begin{aligned} \Leftrightarrow v_3(k!) &= \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor + v_3\left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor\right) + v_3\left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor - 1\right) + \cdots + v_3(1) \\ &\Leftrightarrow v_3(k!) = \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor + v_3\left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor!\right) \end{aligned}$$

Note that if $k \geq 2n$, this is impossible as, on this range, [\[citation needed?\]](#)

$$v_3\left(\frac{k!}{\left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor!\right)}\right) \geq v_3\left(\frac{2n!}{\left(\left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor!\right)}\right) > \left\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \right\rfloor$$

Therefore, $k < 2n$ as desired.

We then have,

$$\begin{aligned} 2n > k &> \frac{n(n-1)}{2} \\ \Rightarrow 2n &> \frac{n(n-1)}{2} \\ \Leftrightarrow 4 &> (n-1) \\ \Leftrightarrow n &< 5 \end{aligned}$$

We are already done with this range.

56;17.5

Problem 26 (21USEMO2)

We claim that $n = 1, 2, 4, 6, 8, 16, 32$ are the only solutions. We will prove that these work and that these are the only solutions as follows.

Claim: If $n \neq 1$ then n is even.

If not, then n is odd and $2^n - 1$ is a square, which is impossible for $n > 1$ since $2^n - 1 \equiv 3 \pmod{4}$.

We write, $n = 2^a b$ for some positive a and some odd number b .

We have that the following quantity has $2^a b$ factors.

$$2^n - 1 = (2^b - 1)(2^b + 1)(2^{2b} + 1) \dots (2^{2^{a-1}b} + 1)$$

Claim: $b \in \{1, 3\}$

If not, then $b \geq 5$. We have $2^b - 1 \equiv 3 \pmod{4}$ cannot be a square. We claim that $2^{2^k b} + 1$ cannot be a square either. FTSOC, if $2^{2^k b} + 1 = a^2$,

$$(a - 1)(a + 1) = 2^{2^k b}$$

We have $a - 1, a + 1$ must both be powers of two that multiply to at least 32, which is impossible.

We hence have $(2^b - 1), (2^b + 1), (2^{2b} + 1), \dots, (2^{2^{a-1}b} + 1)$ are not squares so each have an even number of divisors. *Insert proof they're relatively prime each other* so the number of factors the product has is a multiple of 2^{a+1} . (!)

Case 1: $b = 1$

We have,

$$2^n - 1 = (1)(2^1 + 1) \dots (2^{2^{a-1}} + 1)$$

Has 2^a factors. Since relatively prime, this is possible if and only if $(2^1 + 1), \dots, (2^{2^{a-1}} + 1)$ are prime. These are the Fermat primes. Using the famous fact that this is true up to $a - 1 = 4$, we have $n = 1, 2, 4, \dots, 32$.

Case 2: $b = 3$

$$2^n - 1 = (7)(9)(2^{2 \cdot 3} + 1) \dots (2^{2^{a-1} \cdot 3} + 1)$$

Similarly, using relatively prime and the fact that 7 has two divisors with 9 having 3, we must have this is possible if and only if $(2^{2 \cdot 3} + 1), \dots, (2^{2^{a-1} \cdot 3} + 1)$ are prime. However, $2^6 + 1 = 65$ is not prime so $a > 1$ does not work. The only solution is $a = 1$.

61;19